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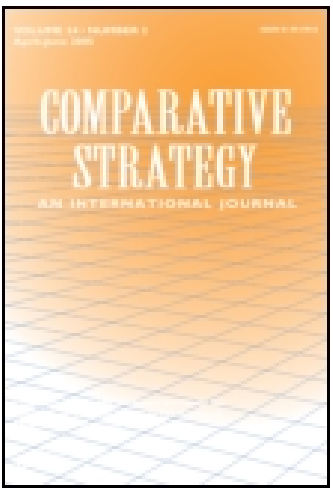

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Chinese Strategic Culture: Traditional and Present Features

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This paper examines the major factors shaping and primary features of both the traditional and current Chinese strategic cultures. By rejecting the term of "Cultural Realism" covering both versions of the strategic cultures, traditional Chinese strategic culture centered on "Cultural Moralism" is conceived as mainly influenced by Confucian preference of non–violent means to external aggression. The present version of Chinese strategic culture expressed in the form of "Defensive Realism," on the other hand, though has certain linkages with its traditional counterpart, stresses more on the material strength than cultural and ideational preferences.

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As China increasingly gains prominence in world affairs, its security strategy has been attracting more and more attention from the outside world, academia and foreign policy practitioners alike. Traditional Chinese strategic culture, as many scholars assert, has to a large extent influenced the contemporary Chinese–making of security strategy. Alastair Iain Johnston argues that "China has historically exhibited a relatively consistent hard realpolitik or *parabellum* strategic culture that persisted across different structural contexts into the Maoists period (and beyond) [1]." While claiming that "the threat and use of force is central to China's history," Shu Guang Zhang sees that "PRC–dominated strategic culture is deeply rooted in the nation's history of warfare... [2]" Both Johnston and Zhang in fact downplay (even deny) the Confucian impact on traditional Chinese strategic culture, while at the same time exaggerate the influences of the traditional strategic culture on its present counterpart.

In contrary to Johnston and Zhang's views, the author believes that traditional Chinese strategic culture is primarily characterized by "cultural moralism." The term "cultural moralism" here is understood as a prolonged habit or practice of moralizing and a persistent emphasis on morality, exemplified by Confucian belief on virtue (*de*), benevolence (*ren*) and righteousness (*yi*) as basic norms in maintaining domestic order and conducting security strategy. Due to fundamental changes in international and domestic circumstances, the contemporary version of Chinese strategic culture, though retaining certain elements of its traditional counterpart, is a significant deviation from it, and featured mainly on "defensive realism" that stresses more on the material strength than cultural and ideational preferences.

The discussion that follows will, in line with an approach of cultural moralism, firstly analyze how Confucianism, together with other related factors, shaped the traditional Chinese strategic culture. This will be followed by an analysis on the major features of that culture. In contemporary time, though there have been fundamental changes both domestically and internationally. Traditional Chinese strategic culture is still, to a certain extent, relevant to its present version, though the Chinese state is now much more sensitive to the signals of regional and international changes than in the imperial era when there were hierarchical relations between the Chinese heartland and the periphery. The

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search for the linkages between traditional and current strategic cultures is an attempt to give a reasonable (neither exaggerating nor ignoring) account of the impacts of the traditional culture on the current type of strategic culture. In examining the factors shaping the current strategic culture, while not downplaying the influences from the traditional version, the focus of the discussion is on the humiliating Chinese history of early modern era, the horizontal (in contrast to the hierarchical in the imperial era) relations of China with the outside world and geopolitical and geoeconomic changes in the post–Cold War era. After that, when analyzing the major features of the current Chinese strategic culture, the persistent pursuit of Comprehensive National Power (CNP) by the Chinese state is particularly emphasized. Finally, the conclusion is based on a comparison between major features of traditional and present strategic cultures; and, the present Chinese state is perceived as conducting a *defensive realist security strategy* in its pursuit of stateness.

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Traditional Chinese Strategic Culture

Factors Shaping Traditional Chinese Strategic Culture

For roughly two millenniums (from 221 B. C. when Qin Shihuang created the first unified Chinese state to the 1840s when the Opium War broke out), the central goal of China's security strategy had been defending the economic, political, social and cultural heartland of China.

Geopolitically, the Chinese heartland encompasses primarily the present Northern, Eastern, Southern and Central China, centered on the Yellow River Basin in the North and the Changjiang River Basin in Central and Eastern China. To the South, Southwest and the West, the boundaries of the heartland were mainly those of mountains, jungles and plateaus. The North and Northwestern boundaries of it were defined primarily by vast arid steppes and deserts. Comparatively speaking, in most occasions throughout the imperial China, the expansion of the heartland had normally confronted much more severe resistance from the nomads of the North and Northwest than from other directions. In fact, a constant and at times serious threat to the heartland had been from the nomads there. In the imperial history, to defend the heartland, the Chinese state was obliged to directly or indirectly control, influence, or neutralize a vast periphery around it. This periphery consists mainly of the present Inner and Outer Mongolia, Xinjiang, Tibet and Northeast China, as well as Northern Korea and the Northern part of the present continental Southeast Asia. Generally speaking, therefore, the periphery of the imperial China extends primarily to the continental borders surrounding the heartland, and to a much less extent, to the maritime boundaries. Therefore, imperial China was mainly a continental power with few maritime interests. Throughout the imperial era, this continental power was not compelled to control or influence beyond its immediate periphery, since no other major powers were situated to threaten China.

Geoeconomically speaking, the Chinese heartland was virtually a self–sufficient economic sphere in the two millenniums. Though China maintained trade with the outside both on land routes such as the "silk road" and sea routes, external commerce had rarely played a significant role in Chinese history. In accordance with the geopolitical factor, the continental trade routes were comparatively more important than the sea routes. The only cases that exceptionally highlighted the importance of the sea trade routes were ones of the Southern Song (1127–1279) and Ming (1368–1644) Dynasties. In the Southern Song Dynasty, owing to the loss of Northern China to Nomadic states such as the Liao,

Jin and Xixia, the Chinese state was forced to defend effectively the growingly important maritime trade and transportation routes along the eastern and southern coastlines, in addition to the further development of agriculture and commerce of the continental Southern China [3]. For this purpose, the Southern Song Dynasty maintained a relatively strong navy. In the early Ming Dynasty, for promoting maritime trade and tackling domestic politics [4], seven maritime voyages headed by Zheng He were undertaken by order of Emperor Yongle in the early 15th century. The Zheng He voyages which normally contained several dozens of ships with thousands of soldiers seldom, with the exception of Ceylon, used force against local people where they passed through, including present–day Southeast Asia, South Asia, the Arabic Peninsula, and East Africa. In contrast to European colonists several decades later, the early Ming Dynasty had no intention of colonializing [5]. The economic self–sufficiency of the traditional China gave rise to "a national cultural psychology of preference on permanent settlement to migration, as well as persistent search for and maintenance of social stability [6]."

As for the demographic factor, the majority (more than 90%) of the heartland dwellers were ethnic Han Chinese who had maintained a homogeneous culture centered on, among other things, a single written language and Confucian ideology. This single written language has been very significant in contributing to the coherence of the heartland. Though there have been hundreds of dialects in China and people from different parts of China can hardly understand each other when they use their own dialects to communicate, a single written language has served as a culturally coherent bond which links people from various areas of the country. The Confucian ideology (especially since the Western Han Dynasty), on the other hand, had not only served as a culturally coherent bond [7], but the centerpiece of the cultural superiority of the Chinese heartland in its contacts with the periphery "barbarians." This cultural superiority was also one of the most important bases for China to establish and maintain the hierarchical relations between the heartland and the periphery.

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Confucian Domination on the Strategic Culture

Since the Western Han Dynasty (206 BC–24 AD), Confucianism had been the dominant political ideology until the end of the imperial era in the mid–19th century. This dominant position was further strengthened in the Sui Dynasty (581–618) when Confucian philosophy became the main content for the imperial examination in selecting officials, and again consolidated in the Song Dynasty (960–1279) when the totalitarian power of the emperors was even more stressed and the male–dominated social order that emphasized the absolute obedience of females towards males was extremely highlighted. The emperors themselves and officials (both military and civilian ones) were also educated with Confucianism (as the primary subject and in some cases the only one). In this political context, it is not persuasive to assert, as some would argue, that traditional Chinese strategy–makers (including both civilian and military officials as well as the emperors themselves) who were educated with Confucianism would substantially take anti–Confucian attitudes in making security strategies, and certainly untenable to argue against the significant Confucian impacts on traditional Chinese strategic culture. In close examination, the author's view is that Confucianism indeed played a dominant role in the strategic culture of imperial China that can be defined by the term cultural moralism. Cultural moralism here refers to the habit and practice of constant moralizing and a persistent emphasis on morality, characterized by Confucian norms of Virtue, Benevolence and Righteousness for judging the domestic and foreign policies of rulers,

and distinguishing legitimate kings/emperors from illegitimate ones, as in the dichotomy of *wang dao* and *ba dao* discussed in the following paragraphs.

In Confucian belief, the ruler's exemplary and benevolent conduct originated from his personal virtue (*de*) drew the people to him and rendered him the mandate to rule. This norm, as asserted, was applicable to both people in the Chinese heartland and the "barbarians" in the periphery.

Confucians, in general, opposed the offensive or excessive use of force against external enemies for the reason that the very application of this force undermines the authority and legitimacy of the whole imperial order. In their view, the maintenance of this order depends on the observance of Confucian benevolence and virtue, not compulsion through the offensive or excessive use of force, though there could be exceptions as analyzed in the following paragraphs. Benevolence (*ren*) is defined by Confucius as "caring for people." Virtue (*de*), benevolence (*ren*) and righteousness (*yi*) are the central norms in Confucianism. For clarifying his view on benevolence, Confucius himself asserts that "peace and harmony among people are the most precious," and "do not unto others what you do not like others unto you [8]."

Though argued by some that the traditional Chinese strategic thoughts are, to a large extent, contrary or at least irrelevant to Confucianism, one can easily discern repeated emphases on "*ren*" and "*yi*" in a variety of major works of traditional Chinese strategic thinking. In Sun Zi's *Art of War*, *ren* is one of the five criteria for being a general though he gave it the specific meaning of caring for soldiers [9]. In Wu Zi's *Art of War*, Sun Bin *Bin Fa*, *Wei Liao Zi* and *Shi Ma Fa*, the two terms ("*ren*" and "*yi*") are also highly valued [10]. By extension, the term "*yi zhan*" refers to the righteous or justified war. In *Guan Zi*, it is asserted that "with only braveness and no justice, the army would be frustrated; ... and the failure of war results from the injustice of it [11]." In *Shi Ma Fa*, war is justified by the famous saying that "it is righteous to wage wars if the purpose of it is to stop wars [12]," and the sole justification for launching a sanctioned attack would be the eradication of governmental evil [13]. It should be noted that not only virtue, benevolence and righteousness are essential in Confucianism, the term of righteous war itself is also highly advocated by Confucians. For instance, Mencius maintained that punitive military expeditions to chastise evil rulers and relieve people from suffering should be justified. And also, Mencius juxtaposes "*ba dao*" (the way of illegitimate hegemon) against "*wang dao*" (the way of the legitimate kings) in a duality of legitimate versus illegitimate rule, that is, "a *ba* (hegemon) who resorted to force and coercion against his people was thought to lack the Mandate and Legitimacy. While a *wang* (king) who ruled benevolently and maintained social order and food stocks enjoyed the Chinese version of the Social Contract [14]."

Hierarchical Relations between the Heartland and the Periphery

In general, imperial China, whether in weak or strong periods, preferred a wide range of non–coercive measures to cope with the "barbarians" along the periphery to ensure peace and stability. This preference is to a great extent a reflection of the Confucian thinking of *wang dao* exemplified here largely by the tributary relations between the heartland and the periphery. For the Han Chinese regimes, the tributary relations were perceived as an extension of the *wang dao* in the domestic ruling of the heartland to the hierarchical relations between the heartland and the periphery, and contained a host of cultural, economic and political purposes. First of all, politically and socio–culturally, it served to construct and maintain the Sino–centric world system of Easy Asia and

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extended the hierarchical social and political order of Confucianism within the heartland to the relations between the heartland and periphery, characterized by the clearly cultural superiority of the heartland to the periphery. Secondly, this Sino–centric world system was further strengthened by hierarchical economic relations between the heartland and the periphery—the heartland rendered gifts and other economic benefits to the periphery in return for various kinds of tributes. Finally, apart from the economic relations that were most often in favor of the periphery, what the heartland asked for was political obedience from the periphery which gave substance to the Sino–centric world order. The tributary system often meant Chinese protection of the periphery vassal states against their domestic upheavals and foreign non–tributary powers. In return, the periphery was required military assistance by the Han Chinese regimes when needed.

Major Features of Traditional Chinese Strategic Culture

Patterns of border defense and periphery control in Chinese history are closely associated with the basically non–violent approach to external aggression. This was largely a reflection of Confucianism and accorded with the views of major works of traditional Chinese strategic thinking. A more pragmatic consideration here is that non–coercive measures would be less costly in comparison with offensive military campaigns. Whether unified or not, the Han Chinese regimes normally preferred diplomatic measures to military solutions when facing "barbarian" threats. For instance, in the Han Dynasty (including both Western Han and Eastern Han Dynasties from 206 BC to 220 AD) (one of the strongest and most prosperous periods in Chinese history), measures such as "*he qin*" (intermarriage between Han princesses and nomadic leaders) were frequent means to prevent the "barbarians" from threatening the heartland. The Kingdom of Wei (220–280) also followed this kind of practice in the Three Kingdom era after the Han Empire was divided. The resort to non–military means to external aggression was also evident either when China was strong militarily (e.g. the Han and Tang Dynasties) or when it was weak (such as in the Northern Song and Southern Song Dynasties). In either situation, the Han Chinese states adopted measures such as gifts, subsidies, the ritual trappings of imperial prestige, and sometimes *he qin* to ensure the quiescence of various peoples on their periphery. Ralph Sawyer summarizes this feature as follows: "Despite incessant barbarian incursions and major military threats throughout history, . . . Imperial China was little inclined to pursue military solutions to external aggression. Ethnocentric rulers and ministers instead preferred to believe in the myth of cultural attraction, whereby their vastly superior Chinese civilization, founded upon virtue and reinforced by opulent material achievements, would simply overwhelm the hostile tendencies of the uncultured. Frequent gifts of embellishments of civilized life, coupled with music and women, would distract and enervate even the most warlike peoples [15]."

The most noted rare exception to this dominant feature was under the reign of Han Wudi in the Western Han Dynasty. In this case, the Chinese state pursued a relatively aggressive policy towards the nomads. For the Western Han Dynasty, this kind of policy was to a large extent the result of a fundamental change in Chinese political ideology. Under the reign of Han Wudi, the predominant political ideology of Daoism in the beginning of the dynasty was replaced by that of Confucianism, which since then had become the dominant ideology for the rest of imperial China. Compared with the extremely anti–militarism and anti–political activism of Daoism, Confucianism is relatively active in both political and military domains exemplified by its emphasis on the centralized authority of the emperors and righteous wars. Since the earlier emperors of the Western Han Dynasty

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took a rather passive and generally unsuccessful approach towards the aggressiveness of the nomads, the relatively aggressive policy of Han Wudi should largely be conceived as a radical and perhaps an overreactive temporary reversal against the previous period, rather than as a constant phenomenon typical in Chinese history, contrary to Zhang's view that use or threat of force is central to Chinese history.

It should be emphasized that Confucianism *under normal circumstances* prefers nonviolent measures rather than violent ones in coping with the "barbarians." The difference between Confucianism and Daoism herein lies in the fact that for the latter the use of force in human relations should be forbidden and for the former it could only be tolerated as the last means and when justified as protecting the interests and welfare of the Chinese state and people.

With the rare exceptions (such as the one in the reign of the Han Wudi previously described) use of force was normally seen as the last resort in imperial China for dealing with the periphery. Rulers of imperial China, generally speaking, preferred to persuade periphery foes through nonviolent means such as accommodation and moral suasion, and at times, cultural–ideational efforts to co–opt or indoctrinate foreigners into the Sino–centric world view through the ritual trappings of the hierarchical suzerain–vassal tributary relationship [16]. This preference is certainly in accordance with the political philosophy of Confucius and Mencius, and the military thinking of many famous strategists like Sun Zi. However, it should be noted that this cultural preference on nonviolent measures in dealing with the periphery should be accounted for both as a means of maintaining the *wang dao* and the fact that non–coercive measures often appeared to be more effective and less costly than military conquests. The nonviolent measures also allowed the Chinese state to devote more resources to the maintenance of order and well–being in the heartland [17], which, in turn, reflects the self–confidence of the Chinese state in its cultural superiority and attraction, as well as economic self–sufficiency.

In the basically nonviolent strategic culture of imperial China, under rare conditions, use of force was considered righteous or justified. Firstly, in accordance with Mencius teaching, righteous war was considered as a primary means to eliminate the evil of certain rulers and it was said (according to Mencius) for the well–being of the people and for reestablishing Confucian virtue. Secondly, use of force is justified in a purely defensive nature (normally static defense) as far as the heartland–periphery relations are concerned. However, even here preference was on non–coercive means like moral suasion and diplomatic maneuver whenever possible. Finally, throughout the imperial history, there had been a strong appeal to achieve and maintain national unification. For that purpose, use of force was often conceived as justified action. Contemporary Chinese persistence of China's sovereignty over Taiwan is, to a great extent, driven by this historical tradition.

Based on the aforementioned analysis on the basically nonviolent approach to external aggression, one can find that Johnston's approach of cultural realism is at least not persuasive in telling the truth of traditional Chinese strategic culture. It can be argued that an approach of "cultural moralism" serves better in this regard. In this approach, social and political norms, as well as cultural and ideational preference come first. In the Chinese case, these include hierarchical social and political relations (which extended from within the Chinese heartland to the relations between the heartland and the periphery as described earlier) based on Confucian norms of virtue, benevolence and righteousness, and the generally nonviolent approach to foreign aggression.

Imperial China quite often used a passive means to defend the heartland that included various sorts of static defense measures along China's continental and maritime borders.

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These measures normally comprised garrisons and fortresses. The Great Wall, which was first constructed in the early imperial time—the Qin Dynasty, and reconstructed in the late imperial era—the Ming Dynasty, was certainly the most significant among all of these. While the garrisons and fortresses in the North like the Great Wall were obviously for defending the Chinese heartland against nomads, the Chinese states also built fortifications and garrisons along China's coastlines, primarily for defending against sometimes frequent attacks from pirates. These efforts were most evident in the mid–Ming Dynasty when the Japanese pirates posed a serious threat to China's Southeastern coastal areas—the most prosperous agricultural region in China.

In not frequent occasions, the Han Chinese regimes did expand militarily into the periphery. However, even these actions had been primarily defensive in nature, or they could be termed as "active defense." These military campaigns were mainly intended to eliminate external security threats from the periphery, most often the Northern nomads, and to bolster or reestablish authority over the periphery and heartland. Generally speaking, the measures of "active defense" did not extend beyond the known periphery.

It should be indicated that though various steps of "active defense" were taken by the Han Chinese regimes, especially in the Han, Tang and Ming Dynasties, with varied records of success, serious debates on whether to use passive or active defense occurred in virtually all the unified Han Chinese dynasties, and more often the case was the winning of the preference of passive defense over active defense. Three factors contributed to this preference: an earth–bound agricultural society in which settled civilization and stable social order were among the main national characters, the predominant influence of Confucianism in the imperial China that emphasized appeasement and moral suasion over military campaigns, and a related calculation that compared with offensive use of force, static defense, together with nonviolent means to deal with the "barbarians," would be less expensive in gaining similar benefits. As one renowned scholar in Chinese Academy of Military Science (AMS) argues, "traditional Chinese security strategy was a rational one in which exerting cultural and political influences was as the main focus while applying limited military means as an adjunct, and the goals of this strategy was to 'spread the influences of Confucian virtue into the periphery' (*de bei si hai*) [18]."

Though China's geopolitical situation and hierarchical relations (between the Chinese heartland and the periphery) of the imperial era have been fundamentally changed in the contemporary international system, and the dominant ideology of Confucianism has largely been replaced by non–ideological and pragmatic ways of thinking of the present day as far as strategic culture is concerned. It is incorrect to disconnect the linkages between the traditional strategic culture and the present one.

While Confucianism is no longer a dominant ideology for the Chinese society and state now, it is unpersuasive to assert that it has been demised in the contemporary China. Many aspects of the present China still resemble the hierarchical order of Confucianism. These include, among others, the human relations in various private firms (both indigenous Chinese companies and overseas Chinese invested enterprises, including Taiwanese ones), and the resurgence of clan–based rural social structure in some provinces such as Guangdong, etc. The Communist Party itself has also repeatedly appealed for the maintenance of Virtue (*de*) among the officials of all levels through its frequent campaigns of "political education," and indeed, in its anti–corruption action of the recent years. Present Chinese leaders like President Jiang Zemin himself highly value Confucian thoughts as being among the finest parts in traditional Chinese culture and claim for its relevance for the contemporary China. Similarly, Chinese intellectuals also promote the resurgence of Confucianism in the present China. In discussing the rise of nationalism in the country,

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Xiao Gongqin advocates that "Confucianism should be the foundation of the new nationalism [19]." Some would argue that this "promotion" of Confucianism in the present China, to a large extent, reflects the "belief crisis" of the present China. Whether this view is right or not, there is certainly a resurgence of Confucianism in China [20]. This resurgence undoubtedly creates an atmosphere in which Confucian thinking on security strategy would be easier for the present Chinese strategy–makers to accept.

In various publications of present China on the subjects of international relations and Chinese security policies, Chinese scholars have frequently quoted and in many cases applied the theories of traditional strategists like Sun Zi in the analyses of the present international system and China's security strategies. The influences of traditional strategic thinking on the present strategic culture are evidenced in the following aspects:

Firstly, righteous wars, one of the central ideas in ancient Chinese strategic thinking, are frequently emphasized in contemporary writings on Chinese security strategy. Phrases of ancient strategists such as "unjustified military campaign would lead to the failure by itself" and "military operation with righteousness" are often quoted and analyzed in these scholarly works. Yan Xuetong, a Berkeley–educated security analyst in one of China's major think tanks, once argued that due to the prerequisite of righteousness in waging wars, "when making decisions on whether to use force, the Chinese (at present) to a large extent are constrained by ethical norms, that is, restricted by the norm of righteous wars [21]."

Secondly, there are clear links between traditional Chinese strategic thinking and one of the most frequently discussed concepts of the present day CNP. Although the term "CNP" did not itself come into existence until the 1980s, the concept (it is so claimed) has ancient cultural roots and "evolved from the concept of 'power,' 'actual strength', to 'national power [22].' " In his book *On the Grant Strategy*, Wu Chunqiu, a distinguished scholar at the Chinese Academy of Military Science (AMS), gives examples from Sun Zi's *Art of War*, Wu Zi's *Art of War*, and Guan Zhong's *Guan Zi*, to show how, "to a varying degree, the discussion of warfare in Chinese ancient literature embodies primitive and simple national power thought. China's wise ancient strategists, never advocated relying only on military power to conquer the enemy, but emphasized combining military power with the non–military power related to war in order to get the upper hand [23]." According to Wu Chunqiu, the ancient Chinese stratagem of "victory without war [24]" also has great relevance to the concept of CNP. This phrase means, as Wu views it, "Under certain military pressures, one can coordinate a political and diplomatic offensive, to psychologically disintegrate the enemy forces and subdue them [25]." Later, in *Xun Zi* and the works of other strategists, the concept is discussed further. Wu believes this strategy to achieve foreign policy goals without going to battle is even more applicable to the future security environment. He writes, "Victory without war does not mean that there is no war at all. The wars one must fight are political wars, economic wars, scientific and technological wars, diplomatic wars, etc. In short, it is a war of comprehensive national power. Although military power is an important factor, in peacetime it usually acts as a backup force, and plays the role of invisible might [26]."

Finally, Chinese writings about the future security environment describe the future in terms of periods in Chinese history, especially the Spring–Autumn and Warring States eras [27]—the ages in which classics of Chinese statecraft, small wars, interstate conferences, treaties, and what Western scholars would label "anarchy" prevailed. One set of the lessons (among many others), in Chinese scholars' eyes, was how to become a great power; another was how to survive destruction at the hands of a predatory hegemon. One specific Chinese premise from the ancient statecraft of the Spring–Autumn and Warring

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States eras seems to influence Chinese authors who write about the United States today—the concept of how to diagnose and deal with a powerful "hegemon" (*ba*) that seeks to dominate several other less powerful states. The way hegemons conducted themselves during the Spring–Autumn and Warring States periods of ancient China forms one of the sources of the classic lessons of Chinese statecraft. In fact, the stories and writings of the Spring–Autumn and Warring States eras are embedded in Chinese culture just as the West has its own history, its own literature, and its own Bible stories. Understandably, therefore, it is only natural for Chinese analysts to look upon that period of its own history to get "implications" for a future international security environment and China's security strategy.

Present Strategic Culture

Factors Shaping Current Chinese Strategic Culture

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In the early modern era (from the mid–19th century to the early–20th century), the Chinese state initially still took Western colonizers for granted and maintained the view of hierarchical relations in dealing with the imperial powers. This soon resulted in disastrous military defeats and the accompanying territorial and financial losses. The humiliating history of the early modern China leaves the country with legacies of contemporary significance. The first is the strengthening of the feeling among Chinese elites that "internal instability and backwardness invite foreign invasions" and the resulting effects of modernization drive. As conceived by Xiao Gongqin, "The profound sense of humiliation, including all the setbacks and frustrations that the Chinese have experienced, has planted in the Chinese people a certain complex that is accumulated and settled in the deepest recesses of the Chinese mentality. This complex can be called 'the dream of becoming a strong nation [28].' " The second is the strong will among Chinese leaders to ensure China's national interests including, among others, state sovereignty, national independence, territorial integration and economic security, etc. This will is especially exemplified by China's attitudes toward Taiwan, that is, China would use force in case Taiwan declares independence.

In the imperial China, the traditional tributary system established between the Chinese heartland and the periphery has now been replaced by horizontal interstate relations between China and the outside world, including not only China's immediate abroad (the traditional periphery in Northeast and Southeast Asia) but also the more distant powers of the West. In this context, there is an emergence of significant security threats to the Chinese heartland from remote and powerful states endowed with superior material strength. For the modern Chinese state, the horizontal relations with the outside world have experienced dramatic changes since the mid–19th century. In the early modern era (roughly from the mid–19th century to the 1920s), China was truly a victim of the Western centered colonial era. After the Nationalists eliminated worlordism in the late 1920s, China was further damaged and weakened by civil wars between the Nationalists and the Communists and the Japanese invasion, though in name China was an "equal entity" in the still Western centered Westphalian system. Only after the Communists took power in 1949 did the term "equal entity" gain its real meaning for China.

The horizontal relations between sovereign states under the Westphalian system, as the present Chinese leaders advocate, contain the norms of respecting each other's sovereignty, territorial integration, independence and non–interference into other countries' internal affairs, etc. The sovereignty here includes those of economic, political, and

security ones. In the virtually anarchical international political system, the ends of the modern Chinese nation–state building are often perceived as protecting national security and enhancing China's international status and image. The basic means for reaching these ends are the efforts on economic, technological and military modernization, as well as selected involvement in international cooperation. Among them, the modernization drive or power pursuit (Chinese elites prefer to use the term of pursuit of the CNP) is normally viewed as the primary means to national security.

After the Cold War, while the general features of horizontal relations of China *vis–à–vis* the outside world have not been changed, the coming–closer between the Soviet Union (and now Russia and the CIS states in central Asia) and China, together with improved bilateral relations of China with India, Vietnam and so on have changed significantly China's geopolitical posture in the Asia–Pacific. By the mid–1990s, China had already secured its borders on its entire land periphery, the first time since the 1850s when the Russians penetrated into the Far East. Geoeconomically speaking, since the economic reforms and opening up began in the late 1970s, China has sustained an average annual growth rate of about 10% which contributed to the upgrading of the CNP (including military strength). However, this high growth rate was accompanied by enlarged regional disparities that have resulted in "the formation of 'core–periphery' regions within China [29]." These core regions whose strategic significance is increasingly felt by Chinese leaders are of course along the coastlines, especially the Southeastern and Southern areas.

Generally speaking, we can draw two interrelated strategic implications from this changing geopolitical and geoeconomic landscape. First, while China has secured its entire land borders, there are a variety of flashpoints that exist in China's maritime boundaries, especially with regard to the issues of Taiwan and the Spratly Islands. Second, the economic powerhouses of China's South and Southeast areas are adjacent to the above two major flashpoints, and the coastal regions in general are vulnerable to external attacks.

Based on the above analysis on the heritage of and the factors shaping the current strategic culture, one could imagine two major tendencies in the present Chinese strategic culture. On the one hand, there is a clear–cut tendency towards the pursuit of the CNP, driven by the calculation on the present domestic and international situations (mainly the relatively weak power endowment of China *vis–à–vis* major powers of the West), the memories of humiliating history in the early modern era, and the influences of ancient strategists' emphasis on the CNP. On the other, in the course of pursuing the CNP, China has been exerting restraints on using force and this restriction will certainly be continued so long as China is still weak compared with Western powers. The rationale behind this tendency include the following two aspects: (1) China badly needs the cooperation with the West economically and technologically while pursuing the CNP, and a preference to the use of force in international disputes would halt the process of cooperation; (2) though not as significant as the previous factor, the influences of Confucianism's resurgence and the accompanying impacts of traditional nonviolent approach to external aggression on the present China serve as a check (though not necessarily the determining one) in using force by the current Chinese state.

Pursuit of CNP as the Primary Means to National Security

According to Chinese analysts, the CNP refers to the combined overall conditions and strengths of a country in various areas, including economic strength, scientific and technological level, military might, etc. As viewed by one Chinese scholar, during the Cold War

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and the U.S.–Soviet confrontation, a nation's power was largely determined by military forces, but in the current "transition period," as the world moves toward multipolarity, military might is no longer the main defining factor of strength. Instead, elements such as economics, science and technology have become increasingly important for the power and influence of a nation in the world. An evaluation of current and future strength requires the inclusion of a variety of factors, such as territory, natural resources, military forces, economic power, social conditions, domestic government, foreign policy, and international influences [30]. The CNP is the aggregate of all these factors. As Deng Xiaoping stated, "In measuring a country's national power, one must look at it comprehensively and from all sides." Deng also asserted that it was important to calculate future trends in CNP that help guide China's reforms [31].

The importance of enhancing CNP in the course of continued economic reforms should not be taken for granted when analyzing factors shaping China's strategic culture, since Chinese security managers conceived that only with continuously enhanced CNP can the country assure internal stability and domestic order, and improve its capacity to defend itself from foreign invasions and upgrade its international status (though not necessarily the restoration of the cultural, economic and political centrality China enjoyed in the imperial era, certainly the position as one of the global major powers in the multipolar world). Among all the factors in CNP, Deng Xiaoping believes that "economic power is the most important" while "military power is the basic means for ensuring that economic power will rise, serves for protecting the nation's general interests, and carrying out global strategic goals. Therefore, while we on the one hand emphasize economic power as being the basis of CNP, we must on the other hand devote ourselves to the development of military power, the element with the most direct role in CNP [32]."

In the process of pursuing the CNP, Chinese leaders and intellectuals alike both conceive the necessity of cooperation with the West and self–reliance. Comparatively speaking, however, the latter is perceived as more important, both for the uncertainty of the West's future attitudes toward cooperation with China, and for avoiding the dependence on the West excessively.

Throughout the PRC history, self–reliance and foreign cooperation have been among the key concerns of China's nation state building. Towards great powers, the Chinese have made efforts to form, first, formal alliance the USSR in the 1950s, and then, an informal alliance with the USA in the 1970s and the early 1980s, in the so–called strategic triangle of the Cold War era, as the weakest player. In between, the failed experience of alliance with the USSR in the 1950s and memories of humiliating history, together with Mao Zedong's personal revolutionary zeal, made China pursue an autarkic policy of extreme self–reliance characterized strategically by opposition to both superpowers in the 1960s.

It was only since the mid–1980s did China begin to carry out a strategy centered on a true combination of self–reliance and foreign cooperation. This is due largely to the changed security environment of the post–Cold War in which China enjoys the peace and stability regionally and internationally never experienced before since the 1840s. This strategy emphasizes economic reforms and opening up to the outside world, friendly relations with, as far as possible, all the countries of the globe, especially the advanced ones, while emphasizing the necessity of self–reliance. On the one hand, unlike the autarkic policy period of the 1960s, as the present China is still relatively weak as compared with industrialized countries and the pursuit of the CNP lies in the heart of China's nation state building, Chinese leaders conceive that the country desparately needs economic and technological cooperation with the outside world to gain market access, foreign investment and technological know–how, as well as security cooperation of both

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bilaterally and multilaterally to upgrade or at least not degrade its international status and image, and gaining a breathing space for China's pursuit of the CNP. On the other hand, distinguished from the alignment policy eras of the 1950s, 1970s and early 1980s, the Chinese government nowadays often maintains that "China must avoid 'entangling alliances' or other forms of extensive international diplomatic or political involvement (and especially involvement with superior industrial powers) that limit the freedom and autonomy of the Chinese state or expose Chinese society to extensive foreign political, economic, or social influences [33]."

Chinese leaders like Deng Xiaoping and Jiang Zemin repeatedly argue the need for China to maintain self–reliance as the core in its pursuit of the CNP [34], especially in the domain of defense strategy. China's self–reliant defense strategy, it is so asserted, "requires the country not to form alliances with any countries or groups of countries in the world, not to participate in any military groups, to self–reliantly make decisions and strategies; and to depend mainly on ourselves to develop our defense industry [35]."

At the same time, though denying the necessity of establishing alliances with foreign countries and emphasizing the need for self–reliance, Chinese leaders acknowledge the importance of cooperation with external powers in economic, technological and even military domains. Among all the external powers, the USA is certainly the most important. This importance lies not only in the fact that the U.S. is now the largest market for Chinese exports, a major investor and an important supplier of technological know–how, but the perceived need of preventing the U.S. (as well its allies in East Asia) from containing China. Cooperation with Europe, Japan and Russia is conceived partly in an economic and political balancing game, apart from the substance of economic and military (mainly with Russia) cooperation. As one scholar puts it, "to Chinese leaders, political diversification offers obvious bargaining advantages as it signals other powers that they are not indispensable and that China can avoid and resist foreign pressures without seriously hindering its national security [36]." This is partially an echo of the saying "playing barbarians off against barbarians" in the ancient and early modern eras but with no involvement in any contemporary alliances.

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Restraints on the Use of Force

Many security analysts both in the West and China's neighbors argue for the likelihood of seeking regional hegemony by China [37]. Is this kind of argument credible? The answer is negative. Seeking hegemonic position by China would certainly give rise to the "containment" and encirclement from the U.S. and many of China's neighbors, and this scenario is the worst for China. Chinese leadership has repeatedly indicated that economic development and modernization is the highest priority for China. As calculated by a Chinese expert, if China maintains its growth rate of 8% per year, by considering population growth and inflation, GDP per capita of China in 2010 would still be below the world average and "this implies that improving the living standard of the people would still be the central concern for the Chinese government. . . . To maintain a security environment conducive to economic development, China would certainly take preventing military conflicts as its primary aim of security policy [38]." As China is still significantly weak *vis–à–vis* Western powers, a peaceful environment is a necessity for China to pursue the CNP.

China's modernization drive needs extensive economic and technological cooperation with the outside world, both with its neighbors and with the West. A preference on the use of force would certainly damage this cooperation. Chinese leaders understand this quite

well and have frequently indicated the importance of a peaceful regional and international environment for China. While exerting a serious restriction on the use of force, however, the PRC has never renounced the use of force as state policy. The circumstances under which China can *legitimately* use force are obviously clearly defined, that is, to maintain the territorial integration, either to deter foreign invasion or to avoid separation engaged by separatists within China's territory, including Taiwan.

Preference of Active to Passive Defense

The term of active defense was first proposed by Mao Zedong in the revolutionary era, and the essence of it in the civil war between the Communists and the Nationalists was "emphasis on eliminating the enemy forces instead of protecting territories [39]." In the Maoist era, this emphasis was almost intact, especially when China faced a security threat from the Soviet Union in the late 1960s and the 1970s. It is, however, substantially altered since the reforms began in the late 1970s, particularly after the Cold War. This is because, as indicated earlier, the greatest security concern for China has changed from issues on continental borders to those on maritime boundaries, as a result of the concentration of economic power centers on the coastal areas. While the active defense in Maoist time advocated the necessity of defeating the enemy forces within Chinese territory by means of "people's war," the current version of it stresses the need to "stop the enemy on China's borders" (*ju di yu guo men zhi wai*) [40]. In a recent book edited by Zhang Wannian, Vice–Chairman of the Central Military Committee of the Chinese Communist Party (CMCCCP), active defense is considered as the basic military strategy for the present China [41] and coping with the following three relationships are essential for the successful enforcement of this strategy [42]:

> The first lies in purely military terms, that is, the relationship between defense and offense. In this respect, active defense is defined by contemporary Chinese strategists as "offensive defense," instead of pure defense or static defense, or put in another way, the combination of defense and offense as asserted. The defensive nature of the active defense lies in its emphasis on "*hou fa zi ren*" (counter–attacking and defeating the enemy after being attacked). The second relationship is that between deterrence of war and winning in war. It is asserted that "to enforce active defense strategy in the new era requires not only solving the problem of how to prepare for fighting and how to fight, but having resolution on how to effectively deter war and avoid war. Both comprehensive war and limited war should be prevented from happening whenever possible, so as to allow the smooth progress in socialist modernization construction. . . . [w]hen necessary, military deterrence can be combined with efforts in political and diplomatic realms, in order to deter the enemy without using force. . . . [o]n the other hand, it should be noted that the foundation for deterring war is the capacity of winning war [43]." The third relationship is that between military campaigns and politics. Modern warfare, it is conceived, is constrained by political and diplomatic factors and closely related to China's modernization efforts. Enforcing active defense, it is so acclaimed, should be "*youli youli youjie*" (endowed with justice, possessed with benefits, and acted within limits).

Active defense, at first glance, would seem to be a bit aggressive, especially compared with passive defense. However, in the modern era, passive defense is no longer effective

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in protecting a country's territory integration and other related national interests, such as the safety of sea lanes, etc. In China's case, while its industrial centers are mainly along the coastlines, it now simply cannot afford to maintain passive defense as the imperial China did. The defensive nature of the present Chinese security strategy is exemplified not only by the words like "counter–attacking and defeating the enemy after being attacked," but also by the deeds in China's military modernization. So far, China's navy is significantly backward compared with the U.S., Japan, and even with certain Southeast Asian countries. Due to China's focus on mainly the economic realm in its pursuit of the CNP [44], in the foreseeable future, a Chinese blue water navy capable of power projection (to the degree of competing with powers like the U.S.) is inconceivable.

Conclusion

As discussed above, the two versions of Chinese strategic cultures share basically the following four similarities: restraints on the use of force, the related emphasis on the defensive nature of security strategy, emphasis on self–sufficiency (or self–reliance), and devotion to the pursuit of CNP. Johnston labels both versions as hard *realpolitik* by using an approach of cultural realism. Is it persuasive? One must look into the rationales behind these similarities between the traditional and current Chinese strategic cultures.

Firstly, the restraints on the use of force, for the imperial China, derive largely from the superiority of the Chinese state *vis–à–vis* periphery "barbarians." This superiority lies primarily in the economic self–sufficiency of the Chinese heartland and cultural preeminence of the country in East Asia. According to Confucianism, use of force would corrupt the Virtue (*de*), the very essence of Chinese rulers. To a certain extent, the restraints, as analyzed earlier, are also resulted from a calculation that using nonviolent means (as compared with military campaigns) in coping with the periphery could gain similar benefits at a lower price. In the present day, on the other hand, the restraints on using force are largely a reflection of the changing anarchic international political structure in which China is but one of the major powers [45]. Under this circumstance, the present China is understandably much more sensitive to the changes in international environment, unlike the imperial China which saw itself as the center of the Sino–centric world system and did not care much about the rest of the world. Therefore, a simplistic assumption of hard *realpolitik* covering both the traditional and current Chinese strategic cultures is at best not convincing, at worst untenable. Instead of using cultural realism approach, in my mind, "cultural moralism" could better explain the traditional Chinese strategic culture in which preference was on moral suasion and diplomatic maneuver rather than military coercion. This cultural moralism certainly has its impact on present Chinese strategic behavior, at least to the extent that Chinese leaders have to think it over on whether it is righteous or not before using force (see earlier analysis). After examining eleven wars in which China was involved from 1840 to 1980, Jonathan R. Adelman believes that for the Chinese, wars are not for obtaining territory, defeating the enemy or acquiring power but for expressing strong will, embarrassing the enemy, and for punishment or self–defense in absolutely traditional Chinese norms [46].

Secondly, in both traditional and current Chinese strategic cultures, there is an emphasis on the defensive nature of security strategy. The Chinese character of *wu* (literally means martial art, Kongfu or force) is actually a combination of two other characters, that is, *zi* (stop) and *ge* (weapon). This implies a deeply–embedded wish of using force for stopping aggressiveness. "This orientation of using force for defensive purposes and not for seeking aggrandizement has great impacts on the present Chinese military and

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administrative circles. . . . In the wars of self–defensive counter–back against India in the early 1960s and Vietnam in the late 1970s, China unilaterally withdrew its army when obviously in an advantageous position militarily and did not occupy the territories grabbed in the wars [47].” However, due to the changes in circumstances, there also exists significant differences between the traditional and current strategic cultures as far as defensive security strategy is concerned. For the imperial China, it is due more to the superiority in both ideational and material senses, while for the present China the material strength comes first and the ideational factors are less influential. This difference results in the following two subdivisions between the ancient and current strategic cultures. The first is the ancient preference to passive defense (or static defense) that emphasize defense on fortifications like the Great Wall on one hand and the present inclination to active defense (or offensive defense) which stresses defense by means of military maneuver in border areas on the other. The second lies in the ancient stress on continental defense and the present on maritime defense. While the first difference means there is more flexibility endowed in the present type of strategic culture, the second is mainly a reflection on the changed geopolitical and geoeconomic factors described earlier.

Thirdly, while in both the traditional and present strategic cultures, there is a clear emphasis on self–sufficiency or self–reliance, the rationales behind it and the degrees in the two types differ significantly from each other. On the one hand, in the traditional strategic culture, this stress reflects largely the self–confidence of the Chinese state in its significant economic and cultural superiority described above, or, in other words, there was little perceived need for the imperial China to have substantial contacts with the outside world. For the present strategic culture, it is due to the fear of excessively depending on powerful Western countries, the uncertainty of the West’s attitudes towards continuous cooperation with China and the suspicion of the Chinese state towards foreign powers resulted from historical experience mentioned earlier. On the other hand, while the imperial China felt little need for substantial contacts with the rest of the world, the present China actually *encourages* cooperation with foreign powers in economic, technological and even military areas (though self–reliance is still a more emphasized approach) in enhancing China’s CNP.

Finally, pursuit of CNP is absolutely a significant component in the state policies for both the imperial and present China. Conspicuously, however, in the present China, the pursuit of the CNP is conceived as the core in its nation–state building and can be regarded as the most important feature in the current strategic culture. For the imperial China, while major strategists like Sun Zi did emphasize the importance of the national power as discussed earlier, it was not the primary aim for Confucian officials in their pursuit of stateness. Arguably, for Confucians in the imperial era, the pursuit of national power was more an *adjunct* than equal (let alone superior) to the cultural and ideational coherence of the state. As a matter of fact, the core of the stateness then was mainly the maintenance of Virtue of rulers.

To sum up, in the imperial China, with the hierarchical international relations of the Sino–centric world system derived largely from the cultural superiority and economic self–sufficiency of the Chinese heartland *vis–à–vis* the periphery, traditional Chinese strategic culture featured mainly on culturally–centered defensive security strategy which can be explained by an approach of cultural moralism. For the present day, rather than using approach of cultural realism as Johnston does, *defensive realism* can better account for the Chinese strategic culture. In view of Sean M. Lynn–Jones, for defensive realism, “the international system does not necessarily generate intense conflict and war. States that understand the international system will realize that security is often plentiful and

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that defensive strategies are the best route to security.... [d]efensive realism retains the customary realist emphasis on the primacy of the states... [48].” The present Chinese strategic culture can largely fit into this category. This is exemplified by the facts of China’s persistence on the centrality of the state and the resulted pursuit of the CNP, the defensive nature of its security strategy, and the perceived need of cooperation rather than confrontation with other major powers in economic, scientific and technological areas in the course of its self–strengthening. The influences of traditional strategic culture, especially the basically nonviolent approach of Confucianism to external aggression, do exist in the present Chinese calculation of security strategy, but they are only secondary to the persisted pursuit of material strength.

Notes

1. Alastair Iain Johnston, “Cultural Realism and Strategy in Maoist China,” in Peter J. Katzenstein, ed., *The Culture of National Security: Norms and Identity in World Politics*, Columbia University Press, New York, 1996, p. 217.

2. Shu Guang Zhang, “China: Traditional and Revolutionary Heritage,” in Ken Booth and Russell Trood, eds., *Strategic Cultures in the Asia–Pacific Region*, Macmillan, London, 1999, pp. 29, 44.

3. In the Southern Song Dynasty, agriculture and commerce of Southern China were significantly more developed than those in the North, thus making the Changing River Basin the most developed area in China.

4. One of the purposes of the first voyage of Zheng He was to find prince Jianwen Di who was the legitimate heir of Ming’s first emperor Hongwu and his right of heritage was illegitimately taken over by his uncle Ming Yongle. In the early time of Ming Yongle’s reign, reportedly, Jianwen Di fled to somewhere in Southeast Asia, and Ming Yongle ordered Zheng He to take the voyage to Southeast Asia to try to find Jianwen Di. Due to the secrete nature of this mission, the fleet was headed by Zheng He, a eunuch in the imperial court. See Huang Zhongren, *Zhongguo Gudai Shi* (Ancient Chinese History), Vol. 4, Ganshu People’s Press, Lanzhou, 1979, pp. 218–219.

5. Yan Xuetong, *Zhongguo Yu Yatai Anquan* (China and the Asia–Pacific Security), Current Affairs Press, Beijing, 1999, p. 50.

6. Huang Pumin, “Zhongguo Chuantong Anquan Zhanlun Shulun” (On Traditional Chinese Security Strategy), *China Military Science*, Vol. 14, No. 2, 2001, p. 138, Academy of Military Science of the PLA, Beijing.

7. Confucianism was so important as a “culturally coherent bond” that some even argue that “what made China ’China’ was its source and origin in the Confucian classics.” (Yongnian Zheng, *Discovering Chinese Nationalism in China: Modernization, Identity, and International Relations*, Cambridge University Press, Cambridge, 1999, p. 73).

8. *Lun Yu Yi Zhu*, (Translation and Explanations on Lun Yu), China Press, Beijing, 1980, p. 25.

9. *Wu Jin Qi Shu Zhu Si*, (Explanations on the Seven Military Classics), PLA Press, Beijing, 1986, p. 28.

10. Zhang Wenru, *Zhong Guo Bin Xue Wen Hua* (China’s Strategic Culture), Beijing University Press, Beijing, 1997, p. 284.

11. *Guan Zi Quan Yi*, (Whole Translation of Guan Zi), Guizhou People’s Press, Guiyang, 1990, p. 15.

12. *Wu Jin Qi Shu Zhu Si*, PLA Press, Beijing, 1986, p. 112.

13. Ralph Sawyer, tr. and comm., *The Seven Military Classics of Ancient China*, Westview Press, Boulder, San Francisco and Oxford, 1993, p. 119.

14. David Shambaugh, “Chinese Hegemony over East Asia by 2015?” *The Korean Journal of Defense Analysis*, Vol. IX, No. 1 (Summer 1997), p. 6. For Mencius, the social contract is exemplified by his famous saying that “the foundation for the kings is the people, and that for

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the people is food." "Men Zi" (Mencius), in *Zhu Zi Ji Cheng* (The Whole Inclusion of Works by Traditional Chinese Thinkers), vol. 2, China Press, Beijing, 1954, p. 58.

15. Ralph Sawyer, ed. and tr., *The Art of Warrior—Leadership and Strategy from the Chinese Military Classics*, Shambhala Publications, Cambridge, MA, 1996, p. 3.

16. John King Fairbank, "A Preliminary Framework," in John K. Fairbank, ed., *The Chinese World Order: Traditional China's Foreign Relations*, Harvard University Press, Cambridge, MA, 1968, pp. 11–12.

17. This calculation is in close accordance with Sun Zi's thought. In his *Art of War*, victory without battle represents the supreme achievement: "Attaining one hundred victories in one hundred battles is not the pinnacle of excellence. Subjugating the enemy's army without fighting is the true pinnacle of excellence." Ralph D. Sawyer, tr. and comm., *The Seven Military Classics of Ancient China*, Westview Press, Boulder, San Francisco and Oxford, 1993, p. 161.

18. Huang Pumin, *Zhongguo Chuantong Anquan Zhanlun Shulun*, p. 138.

19. Xiao Gongqin, "Zouxiang Chengshu: Dui Dangdai Zhongguo Zhengzhi Gaige De Fanxing Yu Zhanwang" (To be Mature: The Reflection and Perspective of Contemporary Chinese Political Reform), *Beijing Youth Daily*, May 13, 1993.

20. The influences of Confucianism would arguably be greater in the future due to the following factors: 1) the massive introduction of Confucian values in China's media and various publications, especially those for kids; 2) the increasing inclusion of stories of traditional Chinese virtue (de) in primary and secondary school books, consisting of even teachings by Confucius himself (such as some articles from the most influential book of Confucius thoughts, "Lun Yu").

21. Yan Xuetong, *Zhongguo Yu Yatai Anquan*, pp. 51–52.

22. Wang Songfen, ed., *Shijie Zhuyao Guojia Zonghe Guoli Bijiao Yanjiu* (Comparative Studies of the Comprehensive National Power of the World's Major Nations), Hunan People's Press, Changsha, 1996, p. 23.

23. Wu Chunqiu, *Da Zhanlue Lun*, (On the Grant Strategy: A Chinese View), Military Science Press, Beijing, 1998, p. 58.

24. The origin of this stratagem is a famous quotation from Sun Zi's *Art of War* ("Subjugating the enemy's army without fighting is the true pinnacle of excellence").

25. Wu Chunqiu, *Guangyi Da Zhanlue* (The Grand Strategy), Current Affairs Press, Beijing, 1995, p. 17.

26. Ibid., pp. 17–18.

27. The Spring-Autumn period (770–476 BC) was the time of some greatest Chinese thinkers like Confucius, Lao Zi, and Sun Zi. The Warring States era (475–221 BC) was the time of Mencius, Zhuang Zi and Han Fei Zi, and "the flowering age for the Chinese fable and exerted a definite influence on works of later centuries," (K. L. Kiu, *100 Ancient Chinese Fables*, Taiwan Commercial Press, Taipei, p. 8).

28. Xiao Gongqin, "Dongya Quanwei Zhengzhi Yu Xiandaihua" (East Asian Authoritarian Politics and Modernization), *Strategy and Management*, No. 2, 1994, pp. 28–34.

29. Zhang Tiejun, "China's Options in the Asia-Pacific Regionalization," in Bjorn Hettne, Andras Inotai and Osvaldo Sunkel, eds., *National Perspectives on the New Regionalism in the South*, Macmillan, London, 2000, p. 41.

30. Huang Shuofeng, *Zhonghe Guoli Lun* (On Comprehensive National Power), Chinese Social Science Press, pp. 16–18.

31. *Renmin Ribao* (People's Daily), February 26, 1990.

32. Zhu Liangyin and Meng Renzhong, "Deng Xiaoping Zonghe Guoli Sixiang Yanjiu" (A Study on Deng Xiaoping's Comprehensive National Power Thought), in Li Lin and Zhao Qinxuan, eds., *Xin Shiqi Junshi Jinji Lilun Yanjiu* (Studies of New Period Military Economic Theory), Chinese Military Science Press, Beijing, 1995, pp. 43–49.

33. Michael D. Swaine and Ashley J. Tellis, "Interpreting China's Grant Strategy: Past, Present and Future," Rand Corporation, 2000, p. 84.

34. Deng argues that "the most important things nowadays for us is to get our own matters right by means of self–reliance, especially to enhance our comprehensive national power. Only

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when our power enhances can we have saying in international affairs."—Teng Teng, ed., *Deng Xiaoping Lilun Yu Shiji Zhi Jiao De Zhongguo Guoji Zhanlue* (Deng Xiaoping Theories and China's International Strategies in the Turn of the Century), People's Press, Beijing, 2001, p. 128.

35. Zhang Wannian, ed., *Dangdai Shijie Junshi Yu Zhongguo Guofang* (Contemporary World Military and China's National Defense), Military Science Press, Beijing, 1999, pp. 172–173.

36. Yi Xiaoxiong, "China's US Policy Conundrum in the 1990s," *Asian Survey*, Vol. XXXIV. No. 8, August 1994, p. 678.

37. David Shambaugh, for instance, observes that China has "aspirations to become the dominant power in the Asia–Pacific region," see David Shambaugh, "Pacific Security in the Pacific Century," *Current History*, Vol. 93, No. 587, December 1994, p. 425.

38. Yan Xuetong, *Zhongguo Yu Yatai Anquan*, p. 68.

39. Zhang Wannian, ed., *Dangdai Shijie Junshi Yu Zhongguo Guofang*, p. 178.

40. In comparison with the active defense in Maoist era, Yan Xuetong indicates, at present "with the vanish of direct military threat, the enhancement of national power and the secure environment for economic development have become the main objectives in China's security strategy. This means that China should adopt new international strategy and "stopping the enemy on China's borders is now a realistic strategic goal." (Yan Xuetong, *Zhongguo Yu Yatai Anquan*, p. 31).

41. Zhang Wannian, ed., *Dangdai Shijie Junshi Yu Zhongguo Guofang*, p. 180.

42. Ibid., pp. 180–182.

43. Ibid., pp. 181–182.

44. In China's "Four Modernizations," defense modernization comes last after industry, agriculture and technology.

45. Chinese leaders and scholars alike conceive that China is one of the major powers in the present multipolar world.

46. Jonathan R. Adelman and Chih Yu Shih, "Symbolic War: the Chinese Use of Force (1840–1980)," Institute of International Relations, Taipei, 1993, p. 238.

47. Yan Xuetong, *Zhongguo Yu Yatai Anquan*, p. 51.

48. Sean M. Lynn–Jones, "Realism and Security Studies," in Craig A. Snyder, ed., *Contemporary Security and Strategy*, Macmillan, London, 1999, p. 62.

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